

Stat 5200: Analysis of Designed Experiments

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Overview

Objectives and overview

- This material is based Chapter 3 on the textbook “A First Course in Design and Analysis of Experiments” (Oehlert, 2000).
- Chapter outcomes include:
 - TODO

Completely Randomized Designs

Completely Randomized Design

- Completely randomized design (CRD) is the simplest design for comparing treatments and is sometimes the preferred design.
- Setup:
 - There are g treatment groups.
 - N experimental units (EU)s available.
 - You want sample sizes of $n_1, n_2, \dots, n_g$, with $\sum_{i=1}^g n_i = N$.

Completely Randomized Design II

- **Idea:** All possible sub-group composition are equally as likely.

Performing a Completely Randomized Design

- Randomly choose n_1 EU's for treatment 1.
 - Randomly choose n_2 EU's for treatment 2.
 - ...
 - Randomly choose n_{g-1} EU's for treatment $g - 1$.
 - The remaining n_g EU's are assigned to treatment g .
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- On a computer, this can be done by permuting $1, 2, \dots, N$, and assigning the first n_1 numbers to treatment 1, the next n_2 to treatment 2, etc.

Advantages and Disadvantages

- Advantages
 - Simple to do; all you need is one random permutation.
 - Simple to explain and understand.
 - Simple to analyze.
 - No restrictions on the sample sizes (other designs may restrict n_i).
 - Easy with missing values.
- Disadvantages
 - Not always possible or cost-effective.
 - The accuracy of the experiment depends on variability among the EUs, not just the variability among treatment groups. Thus, it may require more EUs (\$\$\$\$).

Example: Acid Rain

Wood and Bormann (1974) studied the effect of acid rain on trees. One experiment used 240 six-week-old yellow birch seedlings. These seedlings were divided into five groups of 48 *at random*, and the seedlings within each group received an acid mist treatment 6 hours a week for 17 weeks. The five treatments differed by mist pH: 4.7, 4.0, 3.3, 3.0, and 2.3. Otherwise, the seedlings were treated identically. After the 17 weeks, the seedlings were weighed, and total plant (dry) weight was taken as response.

Questions:

- What type of design is this, and can you describe why?
- What are the EUs, and how many are there?
- What was the response?

Example: Acid Rain II

- What compromises may have been made in this case?

Like many experiments, the researchers necessarily have to narrow down an enormous question to a workable experiment using artificial acid rain under controlled conditions. For any experiment, a considerable amount of non-statistical background work goes into the planning even the simplest experiment.

Models and Parameters

Introduction and definitions

- All formal statistical analysis is based on probability models.
- *EX*: The number of heads in ten tosses of a fair coin would be $\text{Binomial}(10, 0.5)$. Here, the model depends on 2 parameters: $N = 10$ the number of trials, $p = 0.5$ is the probability of heads.
- In an experiment, we may posit several different models for the data, all with *unknown* parameters. One of our objectives is often to describe which model is the best description of the data, and make *inference* about parameters.

Definition: Inference

Using data to learn properties of a probability distribution. In our case, using data to estimate parameters of a model.

Introduction and definitions II

- The models we will consider for experimental design will have two basic parts:
 - A description of the expected value, or mean, of the data. Sometimes called “model for the means”.
 - A description of how data vary around the treatment means. Sometimes called ‘model for the errors’.
- For the errors, we will generally assume that they are independent for different data values, have mean zero, and all have a common variance σ^2 .
- To perform formal tests and obtain confidence intervals, we will further assume a distribution of the errors. Generally, we assume that the errors follow a **Gaussian** (Normal) distribution.

Introduction and definitions III

- For a CRD, we start with two basic models.
 - Recall: g treatment groups, N EUs.
1. **The Full Model** (separate group means)

Introduction and definitions IV

2. The Reduced Model (single mean model)

Defining overall mean

- It's sometimes useful to express the group means μ_i as:

$$\mu_i = \mu^* + \alpha_i.$$

In this case, we call μ^* the *overall mean*, and the α_i 's are the *i*th *treatment effects*.

- This introduces an extra parameter ($g+1$ total), which we need to address. Generally, we do this by defining μ^* and require that $\alpha_i = \mu_i - \mu^*$.

Defining overall mean II

- One classic choice is to define μ^* as the mean of the treatment means:

Defining overall mean III

- An alternative choice (that can sometimes make hand-work simpler) instead describes μ^* as the weighted average:

Defining overall mean IV

- Another common choice in software is to set $\mu^* = \mu_j$, for some $j \in 1 : g$. Many software just use the last mean: $\mu^* = \mu_g$.

Parameter Estimation

Estimating parameters

- We want to use data to estimate μ_i 's and the variance σ^2 .
From these, we'll compute μ^* and α_i 's.
 - We will focus on computing **unbiased** estimates of these parameters.
 - Estimate for μ_i :
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- The estimate for μ^* is fixed, so it depends on how we defined it.

Estimating parameters II

- Unweighted average
- Weighted average
- Reference Group

References and Acknowledgements

Oehlert GW (2000). *A First Course in Design and Analysis of Experiments*. W. H. Freeman. ISBN 0-7167-3510-5.

Wood T, Bormann F (1974). “The effects of an artificial acid mist upon the growth of *Betula alleghaniensis* Britt.” *Environmental Pollution* (1970), **7**(4), 259–268.

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References and Acknowledgements II

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